



BRANCAILLE

Historical Study of a
Provençal Medieval
and Modern Combat
Sport Martial Tradition

Brancaïlle: Historical Study of a Provençal Medieval and Modern Combat Sport Martial Tradition

Social Contexts, and Issues of Legitimation (Antiquity–21st Century)

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Introduction

The present study examines la brancaïlle, a traditional martial practice from south-eastern France characterised by the combination of striking techniques (kick-boxing style) and grappling (wrestling). Also known under the names brancaï, brancace, brancaziu, or Provençal pancrace, this discipline is a complex object of study situated at the intersection of social history, cultural anthropology, and the history of bodily practices. The historiography of this practice reveals a constant tension between cultural legitimation and social marginalisation, between oral transmission and fragmentary written documentation. Our research questions revolve around several key issues: how did a martial practice of ancient origin manage to survive in southern popular cultures despite ecclesiastical and state prohibitions? What social and cultural mechanisms enabled its survival in clandestinity? How can we explain contemporary attempts at rehabilitation and their relative failures?

I. Ancient Origins and Greco-Roman Substratum (7th century BC – 5th century AD)

A. Pancrace in the Hellenistic and Roman World

Pancrace (pankration in Greek, pancratium in Latin) was one of the major athletic disciplines of antiquity. A complete combat sport combining pugilism (striking) and wrestling (grappling), it was distinguished by minimal rules: only biting and eye-gouging were formally prohibited. The kato pankration (ground variant) explicitly authorised submission techniques and throws, in many respects prefiguring contemporary mixed martial arts.

The introduction of pancrace in southern Gaul occurred through Greek colonisation (7th century BC) and later through integration into the Roman Empire. The foundations of Betara (Béziers) around 625 BC, Massalia (Marseille) around 600 BC, and Nikaia (Nice) around 350 BC established a Hellenistic cultural centre in the western Mediterranean. The Provincia romana – the administrative designation that gave rise to the ethnonym

“Provence” – subsequently favoured the spread of Roman athletic practices.

B. Archaeological Evidence in Gaul

Archaeological data confirm the practice of pancrace in several Gallic provinces, albeit unevenly. In Gallia Lugdunensis, a 1st-century AD bronze statuette discovered at Augustodunum (Autun, Saône-et-Loire) depicts an athlete in a ground-fighting position, suggesting local familiarity with pancratic techniques. This region, a major administrative centre (Lugdunum, capital of the Three Gauls), demonstrates the diffusion of the Roman athletic model beyond Mediterranean zones.

Iconographic evidence (oil lamps, mosaics) from the 1st–2nd centuries found in Vienne (Isère) and Orange (Vaucluse) confirms this implantation. Although Narbonensis (the province including historic Provence) has more epigraphic attestations of athletic competitions, notably at Arles, artefacts from Lugdunensis show significant provincial diffusion.

Unlike gladiatorial games, pancrace belonged to athletic contests (*athletae*), often organised within youth associations (*iuventus*) and enjoying a higher social status, though less spectacular than gladiatorial combat.

C. Christian Prohibition and Disappearance of Public Records

The prohibition of pancrace fits into the Christianisation of the Roman Empire. The edict of Theodosius I (393 AD) abolishing the ancient Olympic Games and pagan spectacles marked a decisive turning point. Pancrace, because of its inherent violence and pagan associations, was particularly condemned. As early as the 3rd century, Tertullian described such practices as “diabolical spectacles” incompatible with Christian morality.

After 404 AD, public attestations of pancrace disappear from Western sources. This documentary eclipse nevertheless raises the methodological question of distinguishing between actual disappearance and mere invisibilisation in the sources. The hypothesis of clandestine or informal continuation remains plausible, though difficult to document.

II. Problematic Continuity and Documentary Latency (5th–14th centuries)

A. The “Silence of the Sources”: Methodological Problems

The period from the end of Antiquity (5th century) to the late Middle Ages (14th century) presents a documentary gap concerning mixed-combat practices in Gaul and later France. This absence poses a major historiographical challenge: are we dealing with genuine practical discontinuity or simply a deficit of recording?

Several explanatory factors may be advanced:

1. **Politico-military factors:** the collapse of Roman urban structures, Germanic invasions, and endemic political instability during the Merovingian and Carolingian periods hindered documentary production and preservation.
2. **Ideological factors:** ecclesiastical condemnation of pagan practices led to deliberate concealment in monastic sources, the main producers of writing. The edicts of Constantine (325) and Honorius (404) banning violent pagan games created an unfavourable climate for their documentation.
3. **Sociological factors:** Martial practices popular among illiterate or low-literacy communities largely escaped written documentation. Aristocratic contempt for common activities contributed to their documentary invisibility.
4. **Archival factors:** massive destruction of archives (Viking and Hun invasions, wars, revolutions) and poor preservation conditions (humidity, fires) may have eliminated potential sources.

The Byzantine example, where pancratic practices are attested until the 6th–8th centuries, suggests that informal continuation in the West remains possible despite the lack of direct evidence.

B. Documentary Destruction and Ecclesiastical Censorship

The hypothesis of active or passive censorship by ecclesiastical institutions merits consideration. Monasteries, the main repositories of medieval archives, may have practised selective documentation unfavourable to practices deemed heretical or immoral. Book burnings of pagan texts are historically attested: the burning of the Library of Antioch

(364) ordered by Emperor Jovian, the closure of the Academy of Athens (529) under Justinian, and purges of “magical” and Hellenic philosophical books supervised by bishops constitute established precedents.

Nevertheless, this hypothesis alone cannot explain the total absence of traces. The very nature of the practices – popular, oral, non-institutionalised – suggests they may never have been systematically documented, regardless of any desire for censorship.

C. Evidence of Continuation: Military Training and Folk Practices

Despite the silence of direct sources, several clues suggest possible continuation in adapted forms:

1. Military and Chivalric Context (11th–13th centuries)

From the 11th century, wrestling was integrated into aristocratic martial training programmes. The *septem probitates* (seven chivalric skills) mentioned in sources such as Petrus Alphonsus's *Disciplina Clericalis* (1062–1140) include wrestling among fundamental skills. The *Miroir des Chevaliers* (13th century) and Burgundian chronicles by Eustache Deschamps describe training combining throws and strikes. Wrestling (*ringin* in Old High German) was taught to pages from the age of 7–8, alongside fencing (*geschermen*) and combat (*gevechtin*). In tournaments and judicial duels, unarmed combat was frequent, involving throws, chokes, and ground strikes – techniques reminiscent of ancient *pancrace* in a Christianised chivalric context.

2. Popular and Folk Practices

Late chronicles (9th–10th centuries) mention “brawls” at fairs and grape harvests, potentially mixing punches and ground grappling. These informal confrontations, often linked to illicit betting, may have incorporated residual *pancratic* techniques. However, organised mercantile circuits are not attested before the 11th century. Judicial duels codified in *Salic law* (8th century) sometimes incorporated unarmed mixed combat, although armed forms predominated. Private duels for honour or gain also existed, but without organised mercantile character before the modern period.

3. Marginal Practice Environments

These practices remained confined to marginal settings: backrooms of cafés, suburbs, prisons, where they served self-defence or settling scores. Though implicitly tolerated in such circles, they faced constant repression: police interruptions for public disorder, perception as “thuggish”, association with the underworld and “dangerous classes”.

B. The Turning Point of the Second Empire: 1856 Decree

A decisive turning point came with the 1856 decree, taken at the request of Empress Eugénie under the Second Empire, which explicitly banned combat sports deemed too violent for public morals. This text targeted notably *savate* or French boxing (ancestor of modern kick-boxing) and remained in force until repealed in 1860.

During this period, *savate* was reduced to a non-opposed gymnastic exercise called “*Adresse française*” to circumvent the ban. This stratagem illustrates the adaptation

strategies developed by practitioners in the face of state repression.

Thus, the clandestine nature of these disciplines stemmed from latent illegality, empirically practised but always under threat of increased repression. After 1860, combat practices resumed in a more organised manner, although they often remained clandestine or semi-legal until the end of the 19th century, hampered by the absence of formal sports regulation and persistent moral taboos.

C. Brancaille in Marseille's Marginality (1950s)

Only at the turn of the 20th century, with the rise of sports federations, did boxing and savate begin to be legally regulated. Brancaille, less structured and more violent, persisted in the shadows of clandestinity.

In the 1950s, while professional wrestling – pejoratively called “lutte au chiqué” – experienced a commercial boom in France, many brancaille practitioners converted to it for subsistence. Others opted for illegal fights concentrated in Marseille's Panier district. These clandestine tournaments, characterised by a raw, uncompromising atmosphere, attracted sailors, criminal elements, and passing boxers seeking no-rules confrontations. Brancaille thus became a favoured tool of local organised crime enforcers, irrevocably reinforcing its image as a “thug sport” and anchoring its marginalisation in Marseille's underworld.

Regional Comparison

Yet such mixed-combat practices were not exclusive to Provence. Guy Jaouen, in *Les Luttes celtiques de Bretagne et du Cornwall: Du jeu au sport?*, cites a significant example: in the early 1920s a “mixed” bout pitted boxer Robur against wrestler Jos Bec from Scaër in Brittany. These travelling fairground challenges combining boxing and grappling persisted in the region until the 1960s, illustrating the geographical diffusion of hybrid practices surviving on the margins of official circuits.

D. State Control under the Vichy Regime (1940–1944)

Contrary to a widespread idea sometimes relayed in the literature (notably Jean-Pierre Morel, 1977), the Vichy regime did not invent the ban on brancaille. It had been prohibited, like other violent manifestations, since the Ancien Régime and reinforced after the Revolution. Vichy merely amplified pre-existing state control.

1. Sports Charter (20 December 1940)

The Charter reorganised the sports movement under the authority of the General

Commissariat for General Education and Sports (CGEGS), requiring prior approval of all associations and events to align them with the values of the “National Revolution” – discipline, morality, and physical hygiene. Any unauthorised practice, including clandestine fights, was prohibited and punishable as a breach of public order or illegal activity.

2. Paradox in the Treatment of Combat Sports

Within this framework, the Vichy approach to combat sports was paradoxically nuanced: there was no formal ban on organised boxing or savate. On the contrary, these disciplines were integrated into certain physical education programmes, notably in the Armistice Army, as “attack and defence sports” intended to forge virile, disciplined soldiers. French boxers such as Francis Rutz or Marcel Gaborit even taught within collaborationist organisations like the Service franciste d’éducation physique, revealing how the regime instrumentalised these practices for ideological ends while marginalising more anarchic forms such as brancaille.

VII. Myths and Realities: Secret Societies and Fraternities

A. The “Mafia Corporation” Thesis: Critical Analysis

According to Étienne Giordano, a mafia-like corporation or fraternity existed in Marseille, grouping brancaillaires ready to offer their services for criminal ends: intimidation, murder, blackmail, kidnapping. This claim lacks documentary foundation and most likely stems from a persistent confusion between professional fraternities (such as the Compagnons du Devoir) and political secret societies (Montagnards, Carbonari).

B. Historical Context: the 1841 Insurrection and the Fantasy of Secret Societies

For historian Noémie Jourdan, this fantasy of secret societies has its roots in the failed republican insurrection of 23 March 1841 in Marseille under the July Monarchy. The event mobilised urban artisans and rural peasants in an anti-tax protest influenced by the 1840 Oriental crisis, aiming for a general conflagration in the Midi.

1. Organisational Structures

The reformed Vauclusian Charbonnerie and the Marseillaise Montagne wove an efficient network: local cells with light hierarchy but lightning mobilisation. Their initiation rites – blood oaths on daggers, hatred of despotism, sacralisation of the “holy Republic” – forged a cohesive mystique, protecting and unifying members against the Guizot regime.

2. Repression and Public Exposure

Dismantled by police through the investigations of Borély and Gonet (leading to 260 arrests), the affair exposed these networks to the public. The government, invoking state secrecy to depoliticise the case, nevertheless led to a resounding trial in Marseille, where 51 defendants were convicted of “communist conspiracy”, harshly repressing these worker and rural strongholds.

C. Conceptual Distinction: Professional Fraternities vs. Political Secret Societies

Unlike genuinely political secret societies, professional fraternities or companies traditionally grouped individuals united by occupational or confessional horizons. In this light, the existence of a brancaillaires fraternity – comparable to contemporary sports clubs – cannot be ruled out a priori.

The illegal nature of these fights may have favoured the formation of a clandestine group to organise competitions, technical transmission, and mutual protection against repression. However, to date no documentary evidence (police, judicial archives, concordant testimonies) supports this hypothesis. Absence of evidence is not evidence of absence, but methodological caution is required: the existence of such a structure remains speculative rather than historically established.

VIII. Attempts at Revival and Institutionalisation (1971–2003)

A. Ernest Banon and the Federation of Traditional Provençal Wrestling (1971)

In the late 1970s, Ernest Banon sought to revive interest in Provençal wrestling amid a rediscovery of regional traditions. In 1971 he founded the Fédération des Luttes Traditionnelles Provençales, hoping to restore the cultural legitimacy of these ancestral disciplines.

1. Unfavourable Context

The initiative quickly encountered obstacles:

- ✓ **Competition from Asian martial arts:** the craze for judo, karate, and kung-fu, then at their peak in the West, relegated European martial practices to the background.
- ✓ **Controversial recruitment methods:** according to Antoine Herrero, Banon divided recruits into two categories – an “alimentary” section of less combative but financially generous members who ensured the club’s survival, and a competitive elite reserved for seasoned talents. To make this selection, he subjected novices to an immediate fight, a ritual he called “natural selection” that discouraged the

weakest.

2. Intuitive Pedagogy

Though lacking formal pedagogy, this approach quickly identified each individual's temperament. Banon was credited with the rare gift of transforming a passive temperament into an aggressive fighter – or vice versa – adapting his teaching with almost instinctive intuition.

3. Transmission and Succession

In 1989, weakened by illness, Banon handed over leadership to his disciple Régis Renault. The latter, preferring pancrace, delegated direction in turn to Jean-Paul Jimenez. Passionate and aware that traditional wrestling struggled to attract contemporary youth, Jimenez focused exclusively on *brancaille*, seeking to preserve its combative essence.

B. The French Pancrace Association (1990–1992)

1. Foundation and Multidisciplinary Team

The institutional momentum took shape in 1990 in Carpentras with the creation of the first Pancrace Association, officialised in the *Journal Officiel* on 5 August 1992. At its head was Régis Renault, supported by three seasoned Indian martial arts practitioners – Francisco Policarpo, Olivier Sauvayre, and Pierre Mourmes – later joined by Frédéric Durand (judo), Ange Giovanetti (kickboxing), and Patrick Cascales (self-defence). This multidisciplinary team brought technical richness, fusing Oriental and Provençal heritages.

2. Hostile Media Context and Counter-Cultural Publishing

At the time, before the media explosion of the UFC (founded 1993), mainstream French martial arts magazines rejected mixed styles, branding them immoral barbarism. This media hostility confined such practices to the underground. The advent of affordable laser printing and photocopiers in the early 1990s nevertheless unleashed a vibrant counter-cultural publishing scene. Self-published books and fanzines proliferated: *Lutcho*, *Arena Superfight*, *Vince*, *Navaja*, *Pancrace Infos*, *Outlaw*, *La Cogne*, *Massilia Nervis*, *Gouren Actu*, *Apaches*, *Combat de Rue*... These amateur publications, fresh and incisive, documented marginalised martial practices with an authenticity often superior to standardised professional magazines.

C. Cultural Vision and Institutional Resistance

1. Historical Re-enactment Project

Régis Renault aimed to relaunch pancrace in its ancient form, organising competitions in emblematic sites (arenas of Arles, Fréjus, Nice-Cimiez, Nîmes) with athletes in period Roman dress. This bold vision combining historical re-enactment and combat sport met fierce opposition.

2. Cultural Paradox

Renault himself denounced a paradox: authorities tolerated bullfights – spectacles involving animal death – deemed “noble” because of cultural tradition, yet refused to authorise a “pagan” resurrection of pancrace perceived as barbaric. This asymmetry reveals differentiated mechanisms of cultural legitimation.

3. Rebranding Strategy

Faced with institutional rejection and aware of brancaille’s sulphurous reputation, Renault opted for strategic rebranding as “pancrace” from 1990. This designation offered several advantages:

- Prestigious ancient reference (valorised Greco-Roman culture).
- Symbolic distance from clandestine, criminalised brancaille.
- Possibility of legitimation as “historical re-enactment” rather than contemporary martial practice.

He thus founded the French Pancrace Association and later the International Pancrace Union to organise events abroad.

D. Regulatory Compromise and Disciplinary Bifurcation

Faced with administrative inertia and the impossibility of obtaining ministerial approval for such a violent discipline, Renault agreed to pragmatic compromises:

1. Modern Pancrace (institutional version)

- Removal of ground-and-pound (the most controversial technique).
- Adaptation for codified educational and sporting use.
- Compliance with safety standards required for official recognition.

2. Traditional Pancrace (authentic version)

- Fidelity to the original spirit including ground strikes.
- Reserved for foreign competitions with less restrictive regulations.

- Limited to experienced practitioners.

3. Critical Reception

This bifurcation provoked contradictory criticisms: some accused Renault of betraying brancaille's authenticity by diluting it; others of disguising a "street sport" under a fallacious cultural veneer. Nevertheless, seminars attracted martial artists from France and Europe, seduced by the hybridity and exoticism of this resurrected discipline.

E. Renault's Enigmatic Silence on Brancaille

1. Documentary Paradox

What is striking in this trajectory is Régis Renault's obstinate silence on brancaille itself. Former president of the wrestling federation, Banon's heir and Jimenez's training partner, he was ideally placed to reveal its technical and historical specificities. Such a spectacular discipline could have propelled his pancrace as a distinctive innovation in the emerging martial market.

Instead, Renault chose discretion, imitating the traditional brancaillaires, jealous guardians of their art. This forced reserve recalls the codes of silence observed in certain marginal or criminal underworld.

2. Explanatory Hypotheses

Several factors may explain this silence:

- X **Persistent illegality**: lacking any ministerial approval, brancaille remained illegal. Publicly documenting its techniques and networks could have exposed practitioners to prosecution.
- X **Protection of clandestine networks**: media exposure would have drawn police attention to practitioner circles.
- X **Social stigmatisation**: the association of brancaille with Marseille's criminal underworld made any public claim potentially damaging to the institutional legitimization of pancrace.

3. Investigation and Indirect Testimonies (2010)

In 2010 an attempt to interview Renault met with categorical refusal. His former students, when contacted, feigned ignorance or disinterest in Provençal wrestling. Through them, contacts were obtained for two witnesses: David Blanchard in Marseille and Louis Ferrand in Aix-en-Provence.

Their unvarnished testimonies illuminated the criminal dimension of *brancaille*: association with Marseille underworld figures, use as a tool of organised violence. Unlike boxing or wrestling, which had official approval and legal federative structures, *brancaille* remained a clandestine stronghold without institutional regulation, evoking the early scandals associated with North American MMA in the 1990s.

F. Legitimation Strategy: Syncretic Fusion

It was probably to exorcise this toxic image that Renault developed his *pancrace* as an eclectic synthesis:

- ✓ Provençal base (original *brancaille*).
- ✓ Indian influences (Vajramushti).
- ✓ Japanese contributions (judo, ju-jitsu via Durand).
- ✓ Russian techniques (sambo).
- ✓ Modern striking (kickboxing via Giovanetti).
- ✓ Self-defence concepts (via Cascales).

This fusion created an innovative but diluted discipline, institutionally acceptable yet far removed from the raw authenticity of street *brancaille*.

G. Decline and Withdrawal (2003)

In 2003, weary after fifteen years of efforts and persistent governmental refusal to recognise *pancrace* as an official discipline, Renault abandoned the project. Like traditional *brancaillaires*, he embraced anonymity, gradually withdrawing from the public martial scene and passing the torch to Francisco Policarpo.

The latter, overwhelmed by personal and professional obligations, quickly relinquished leadership. Thereafter, institutional *pancrace* was eclipsed by Brazilian jiu-jitsu and contemporary MMA (UFC, Pride), which captured public interest in mixed combat within a legal and media framework. Traditional *pancrace* fell back into historiographical oblivion.

Contemporary Clandestine Transmission: Tramoni and Underground Perpetuation

1. Succession and Return to Clandestinity

Original *pancrace* reverted once again to *brancaille*, plunging back into clandestinity. In 2010 the sudden death of Jean-Paul Jimenez led Renault to designate Ghjuvanni Tramoni as successor and guardian of the tradition. While

institutional pancrace disappeared from the media radar, brancaille refused extinction: its teaching continues discreetly under Tramoni's aegis, who maintains this millennial transmission.

Clubs, impermeable to the uninitiated public, jealously preserve this heritage, operating on a system of co-optation and personal recommendation.

2. Rumours of Contemporary Clandestine Competitions

Unverifiable information circulating on Darknet forums mentions monthly competitions held in discreet locations, culminating in a major tournament in May on Saint Pancrace's day (12 May). These events would be reserved for a hand-picked elite (around fifty selected guests), with strict prohibition of smartphones, cameras, and recording devices to guarantee anonymity.

The alleged rules, in French, would authorise men's, women's, and mixed bouts. Required attire would be vale tudo style: bare torso and shorts for men, reinforced sports bra and shorts for women. Gloves and protective gear would be forbidden (except optional groin protection). Without rounds, fights would end by submission, referee decision, or public consensus if interest wanes.

Weight categories would be limited (60–80 kg), with strict anti-doping controls and double weigh-ins (four hours and fifteen minutes before the fight, under supervision) to counter weight-cutting. Alleged prize money would reach €5,000 per category, €10,000 for the absolute title, doubled for mixed bouts (€20,000 and €50,000).

3. Critical Evaluation of This Information

Tramoni and his peers maintain absolute silence on these allegations. Several methodological considerations apply:

- Lack of independent verification renders the information highly speculative.
- Darknet forums are conducive to disinformation, urban myths, and fabrications.
- The alleged financial amounts (up to €50,000) seem disproportionate for genuinely clandestine circuits, suggesting possible exaggeration or invention.
- No direct testimony from a participant or spectator has been authenticated.

Absolute methodological caution is therefore required: this information must be treated as unconfirmed rumours rather than established facts, though they testify to the persistence of a cultural imaginary surrounding clandestine brancaille.

IX. Modern Appropriation and Commodification (2000–2020)

A. International Commercial Recovery

Today *brancaille* – this French martial discipline rooted in popular and contestatory substratum – is the object of commercial appropriation by MMA and martial arts promoters, often far removed from its historical authenticity. This recovery extends geographically from France to the international level.

1. Events Abroad

- **Romania:** Andrei Diaconu incorporates “*brancaille*” into his underground MMA galas to diversify the spectacle.
- **Brazil:** French savateur Michel Delande organises Parisian wrestling and “*brancaille*” seminars primarily for commercial purposes.
- **United States:** Pierre Long, Joseph Klein, Pascal Petit teach “*brancaille*” self- defence courses.
- **India:** Philippe Veiry also teaches a personal *brancaille* method.
- **International MMA structures:** proliferation of “*brancaille*”-themed seminars and courses, generally disconnected from authentic Provençal tradition.

2. French Innovations

In France, innovators such as David Taïeb (integration into Krav Maga for self-defence) or Sébastien Coste (MMA-*brancaille* hybrid) energise the martial landscape, offering accessible, creative pedagogical tools that revive interest in French-inspired mixed combat.

B. Tension Between Authenticity and Commercial Innovation

These initiatives, however ingenious and dynamic, depart considerably from 19th-century street *brancaille* and its 20th-century clandestine manifestations. To preserve the patrimonial integrity of the practice, it is necessary to clearly distinguish:

- Authentic cultural heritage: historically situated practice, socially contextualised, transmitted orally in closed circles.
- Modern pedagogical innovations: contemporary creations inspired by MMA, compliant with current sporting, legal, and commercial norms.

This distinction prevents a commodification that would dilute the contestatory and popular essence of *brancaille*, while recognising the legitimacy of pedagogical innovations that perpetuate certain technical elements in legal and safe frameworks.

X. Conclusion: History, Memory, and Historiographical Issues

A. Methodological Lessons

The study of *brancaille* reveals several methodological lessons for the history of bodily and martial practices:

1. Non-linearity of Cultural Transmissions

The history of combat sports does not follow a linear trajectory of progress and institutionalisation. It meanders between visceral rusticity and imposed modernity, between cultural legitimation and social marginalisation, between media brilliance and clandestine obscurity. *Brancaille* embodies this complexity: successively tolerated festive practice, criminalised activity, object of patrimonial rehabilitation, then commercial merchandise.

2. Importance of Regional Comparisons

The Cypriot example, where *pancrace* survived until the 19th century, empirically demonstrates that secular transmission is possible. Comparisons with other regional martial practices (Breton wrestling, Corsican fights) enrich understanding by contextualising *brancaille* within a broader phenomenon of persistence of popular martial traditions in Western Europe.

B. *Brancaille* as a Social Revealer

Beyond its intrinsic interest as a martial practice, *brancaille* serves as a revealer of broader social dynamics:

1. Popular Resistance and Cultural Memory

The clandestine perpetuation of this practice despite repeated prohibitions since the 4th century testifies to mechanisms of cultural resistance by the popular classes against norms imposed by ecclesiastical and state elites. It illustrates how marginalised communities preserve identity practices despite repression.

2. Criminalisation and Social Stigmatisation

The 20th-century association of *brancaille* with Marseille's criminal underworld reveals mechanisms of social stigmatisation of popular practices. This criminalisation contrasts with the parallel legitimation of other ritualised

violence (bullfighting, institutional boxing), highlighting the arbitrariness of cultural legitimization processes.

3. Tensions Between Tradition and Modernity

Rehabilitation attempts (Banon, Renault) illustrate the difficulties of transposing traditional practices into modern institutional frameworks. The necessary compromises (dilution, codification, sportivisation) inevitably transform the nature of the practice, raising the question of the authenticity of “traditional” revivals.

C. Conclusive Synthesis

Brancaïlle, a southern martial practice with a complex and discontinuous trajectory, embodies the fundamental tensions between popular culture and state-ecclesiastical domination, between oral transmission and written record, between traditional authenticity and modern adaptation. Marginalised and criminalised, it nonetheless constitutes a precious testimony of Provençal popular cultural resistances and sociabilities over the long term.

Its study reveals the limits of conventional documentary history when faced with the practices of subaltern classes, requiring a diversified methodology combining critique of written sources, ethnographic investigation, archaeology, and comparativism. It also reminds us that the history of bodily practices cannot be reduced to that of official sports institutions but must integrate the margins, clandestinities, and resistances.

Brancaïlle thus remains, to borrow an expression from contemporary historiography, a “burned archive”: a practice whose documentary traces have been partially erased by mechanisms of symbolic domination and censorship, but whose memory persists in bodies, gestures, and oral transmissions.

General Conclusion

This study of brancaïlle, a Provençal combat sport with a complex and largely occulted trajectory, reveals the methodological challenges posed by the history of popular bodily practices. Between fragmentary sources and oral transmissions, between cultural legitimization and social marginalisation, between traditional authenticity and modern reinventions, brancaïlle embodies the fundamental tensions of social and cultural history. Its study demonstrates that the history of combat sports cannot be reduced to that of official federative institutions but must integrate the margins, clandestinities, and popular resistances. It also demands constant methodological reflexivity on sources, their biases and silences, as well as epistemological transparency regarding the structural

uncertainties affecting historical knowledge.

Ultimately, brançaille remains a revealing object of study of the mechanisms of symbolic domination, cultural resistance, and intergenerational transmission within southern popular classes.

